

STUDY-UNI · FULL MARKING SCHEME

MG2007

Enterprise Planning and Processes

Summer 2025 Examination · Paper 1

Duration: 90 minutes | **Total Marks:** 100

Instructions: Answer both Question 1 and Question 2 | each question: answer any 3 of 4 (50 marks)

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How This Marking Scheme Is Structured

Both questions on this paper ask you to answer **any three of four** options, each carrying equal marks. This scheme covers **all four options in both questions** — all eight business models on the paper — so that whichever three you choose per question, a complete model answer is available.

Each sub-part is marked out of **16.7** ($50 \div 3$), reflecting one of the three answers you will select within that 50-mark question; UCC may allocate this as whole numbers (e.g. 17 + 17 + 16) at the point of aggregation, which does not change the underlying weighting.

Each model answer follows the same three-part structure set out in the module's own exam guidance: **(1) description of the model** (~40% of the sub-part — elements, and a sketch where appropriate), **(2) purpose and benefit**, and **(3) critical, evidenced application** to the specific context named in the question, including genuine limitations — not just a description of what the model is.

CHECKNOTE — CITATION APPROACH *Every model in this scheme is grounded in its original, independently verifiable source (see the References line under each sub-part). Company examples used to illustrate application are drawn from widely known, publicly documented patterns and are flagged inline as independent grounding rather than MG2007 course-pack content, since the course pack itself does not name specific companies against these models.*

Question 1 — Strategy Models

Answer any three of the following four. Use examples to support your answer. All four carry equal marks. (50 marks)

Question 1(a) — Ansoff Matrix

QUESTION AS SET

a. Critically discuss the **Ansoff Matrix** and its application for organizational strategy

FULL MODEL ANSWER

1. Description of the Model (≈40%)

The **Ansoff Matrix** was introduced by Igor Ansoff as a two-by-two framework for classifying the growth strategies open to a firm along two axes: **products** (existing vs. new) and **markets** (existing vs. new). The four resulting quadrants are:

- **Market Penetration** — selling more of an existing product into an existing market (e.g. through pricing, promotion, or increased usage). This is the lowest-risk quadrant.
- **Product Development** — launching new products into existing markets, drawing on established customer relationships and brand equity.
- **Market Development** — taking an existing product into a new market, whether a new geography, customer segment, or distribution channel.
- **Diversification** — new products into new markets. This is the highest-risk quadrant, since the firm has neither established product capability nor established market knowledge to draw on, and it is further split into *related* diversification (some synergy with the existing business) and *unrelated* diversification (none).

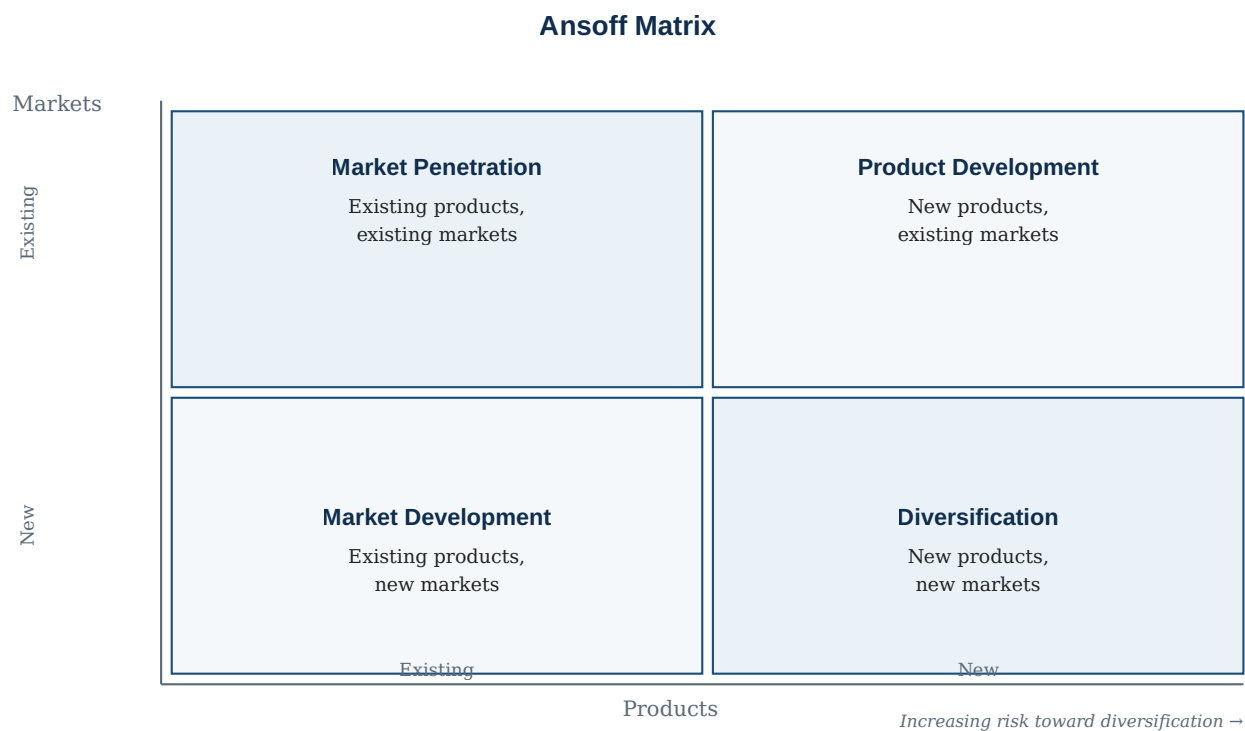


Figure 1 — The Ansoff Matrix, plotting product newness against market newness.

2. Purpose and Benefits

The model's purpose is to give management a structured vocabulary for growth options before committing resources, forcing an explicit choice between organic growth from what the firm already does well and riskier expansion into unfamiliar territory. Its main benefit is simplicity: it is quick to apply in a workshop setting, requires no financial modelling to use directionally, and creates a shared reference point across a management team debating strategic direction.

3. Critical Application — Organizational Strategy

Applied to organizational strategy, the Ansoff Matrix is most useful as a *screening* tool early in strategy formulation, not as a decision-making tool on its own. A consumer goods firm such as Coca-Cola, for example, uses market penetration in its core carbonated soft-drinks markets (promotional pricing, distribution intensity) while pursuing product development (new beverage lines) and market development (expansion into emerging markets) simultaneously across different parts of its portfolio — illustrating that large organizations rarely sit in a single quadrant at once.

CHECKNOTE — The Coca-Cola example above is used illustratively to show how the four strategies can be pursued in parallel across a diversified portfolio; it is not sourced from the MG2007 course pack and should be treated as independent grounding rather than lecture content.

Critically, the model has three well-recognised limitations that a strong answer should raise: (i) it says nothing about *how* to execute a chosen strategy, only which broad direction to pursue; (ii) it does not account for competitor response, so a market penetration move that looks safe on paper can trigger a price war that erodes the very margins it was meant to protect; and (iii) it treats risk as increasing uniformly toward diversification, when in practice a well-resourced related diversification (e.g. a beverage firm entering adjacent snack categories) can carry lower risk than an aggressive market development push into an unfamiliar regulatory environment. A critically strong answer therefore uses the

matrix to open the strategic conversation, then supplements it with tools that address competitive dynamics (Porter's Five Forces) and resource-fit (the 7-S framework) before a final strategic choice is made.

VERDICT Useful as a first-pass strategic screening tool; insufficient on its own to select or execute a growth strategy.

SOURCES CITED IN THIS ANSWER

Ansoff, H. I. (1957). Strategies for Diversification. *Harvard Business Review*, 35(5), 113–124.

Mark Allocation — Question 1(a)

Band	%	Marks	Criteria (per UCC MG2007 grade descriptors)
First Class 70–100%	70–100%	11.7– 16.7	All four quadrants correctly defined with clear existing/new product-market logic; diagram correct; purpose and benefit critically discussed; a genuine, well-grounded example applied to organizational strategy; at least two independently-sourced limitations raised with cogent argument (e.g. no treatment of competitor response, uneven risk gradient).
2.1 60–69%	60–69%	10.0– 11.5	Model correctly described with diagram; purpose clearly explained; application example present but less developed; at least one limitation raised without full independent grounding.
2.2 50–59%	50–59%	8.3–9.8	Model described with minor inaccuracies or an incomplete diagram; purpose stated but not linked clearly to organizational strategy; limited or generic critique.
Pass 40–49%	40–49%	6.7–8.2	Basic, mostly accurate description of the four quadrants; little independent application or critique; answer relies heavily on definitions without addressing the specific question asked.
Fail 0–39%	0–39%	0–6.5	Model misidentified or quadrants confused; no credible application to organizational strategy; no critical engagement.

Sub-part total

16.7 / 16.7 marks

Question 1(b) — Business Model Canvas

QUESTION AS SET

b. Critically discuss the **Business Model Canvas** and its application for organizational strategy.

FULL MODEL ANSWER

1. Description of the Model (≈40%)

The **Business Model Canvas (BMC)** is a one-page strategic management template that structures a business idea across nine interlocking building blocks: **Customer Segments**, **Value Propositions**, **Channels**, **Customer Relationships**, **Revenue Streams**, **Key Resources**, **Key Activities**, **Key Partners**, and **Cost Structure**. The right-hand side of the canvas (customer segments, value proposition, channels, relationships, revenue) addresses how the business creates and captures value for the customer; the left-hand side (key resources, activities, partners, cost) addresses how it is internally organised to deliver that value.

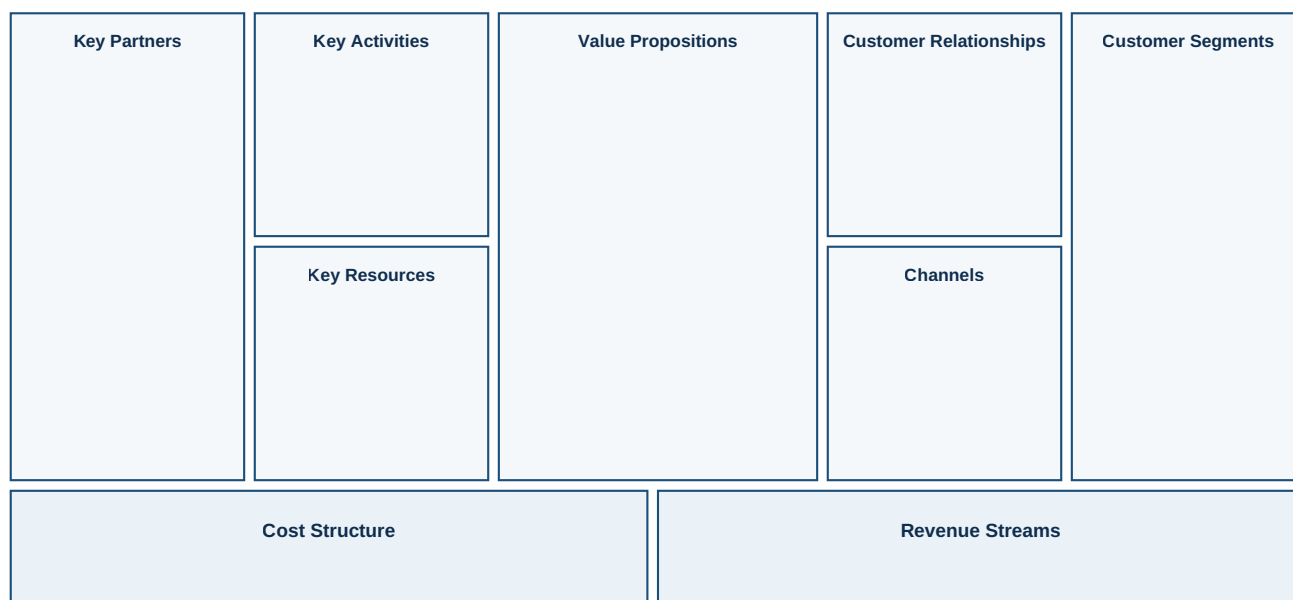


Figure 1 — The nine building blocks of the Business Model Canvas.

2. Purpose and Benefits

The canvas's purpose is to make the logic of a business model visible and debatable in a single view, rather than buried across a lengthy business plan. Its main benefits are speed of iteration — a team can sketch, test, and revise a business model in a workshop setting using sticky notes — and its function as a common language across otherwise siloed functions (a marketer and a finance lead can point to the same canvas and see how their assumptions connect).

3. Critical Application — Organizational Strategy

Applied to organizational strategy, the BMC is most valuable during strategy formulation and business model innovation — for example, mapping how a subscription-based streaming service such as Netflix links its value proposition (on-demand, ad-light content) to its revenue model (recurring subscription rather than per-title payment)

and its key resource (a recommendation algorithm and licensed/original content library). Comparing two canvases side-by-side is a fast way to see how a firm's strategy would have to change to enter an adjacent business model.

CHECKNOTE — The Netflix example is used illustratively to demonstrate how the nine blocks interconnect; it is independent grounding, not MG2007 course-pack content.

The model's limitations should be raised critically: (i) it describes a business model at a point in time but has no built-in mechanism for competitive or financial analysis, so two canvases can look equally attractive on paper despite very different underlying unit economics; (ii) because it is qualitative and visual, it can create a false sense of consensus in a workshop when participants have papered over real disagreements about, for example, what the "value proposition" actually is; and (iii) unlike Porter's Five Forces it says nothing about industry structure or competitor behaviour, so it is a tool for describing a strategy, not for testing whether that strategy is competitively viable.

VERDICT Strong for describing and communicating a business model; needs to be paired with competitive and financial analysis before it can inform an actual strategic decision.

SOURCES CITED IN THIS ANSWER

Osterwalder, A. & Pigneur, Y. (2010). *Business Model Generation: A Handbook for Visionaries, Game Changers, and Challengers*. Hoboken, NJ: John Wiley & Sons.

Mark Allocation — Question 1(b)

Band	%	Marks	Criteria (per UCC MG2007 grade descriptors)
First Class 70–100%	70–100%	11.7– 16.7	All nine blocks correctly identified and explained with the value-creation/ value-capture logic made explicit; diagram correct; a well-grounded example applied to organizational strategy; at least two independently-reasoned limitations (e.g. no competitive lens, false consensus risk).
2.1 60–69%	60–69%	10.0– 11.5	Most blocks correctly described; purpose explained; example present but under-developed; one limitation raised.
2.2 50–59%	50–59%	8.3–9.8	Partial or generic description of the nine blocks; limited link to organizational strategy; minimal critique.
Pass 40–49%	40–49%	6.7–8.2	Basic recall of some blocks; little independent application; answer does not clearly address organizational strategy as asked.
Fail 0–39%	0–39%	0–6.5	Blocks confused with an unrelated framework or largely absent; no credible application or critique.

Sub-part total

16.7 / 16.7 marks

Question 1(c) — Porter's Five Forces

QUESTION AS SET

c. Critically discuss the **Porters Five Force model** and its application to assess industry attractiveness.

FULL MODEL ANSWER

1. Description of the Model (≈40%)

Porter's Five Forces is a framework for analysing the structural attractiveness of an industry by examining five sources of competitive pressure on incumbent firms: the **threat of new entrants** (how easily competitors can enter, shaped by barriers such as capital requirements and economies of scale), the **bargaining power of suppliers** (how easily suppliers can raise prices or restrict supply), the **bargaining power of buyers** (how easily customers can force prices down or demand more value), the **threat of substitutes** (products or services outside the industry that meet the same customer need), and the intensity of **rivalry among existing competitors** at the centre of the model, which the other four forces act upon.

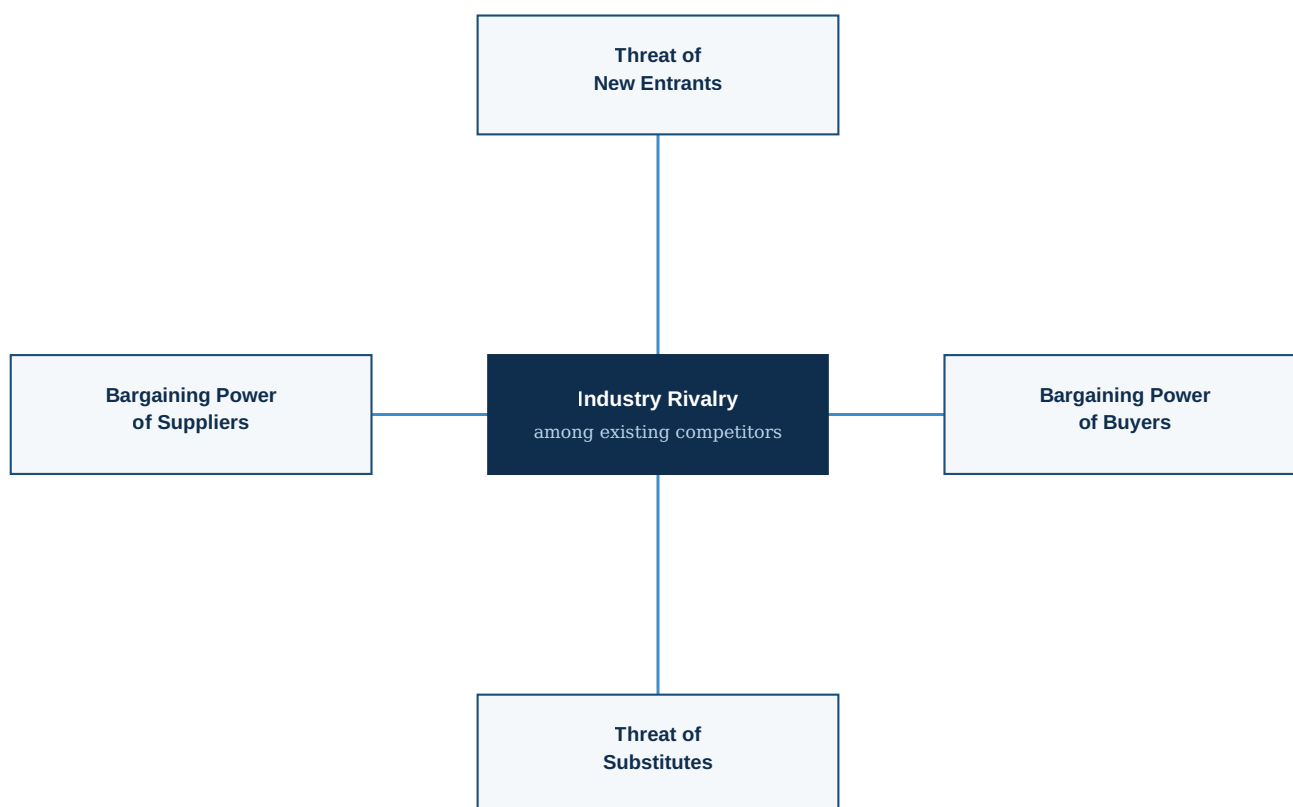


Figure 1 — The five forces acting on industry rivalry.

2. Purpose and Benefits

The model's purpose is to explain why average profitability differs systematically between industries, independent of any individual firm's competence — a fragmented, low-barrier industry with powerful buyers will tend to be structurally less profitable than a concentrated industry protected by high entry barriers, regardless of how well any one

firm in it is run. Its benefit is that it moves strategic thinking beyond "who are our direct competitors" to a fuller picture of where value is being bargained away in the value chain.

3. Critical Application — Assessing Industry Attractiveness

Applied to assessing industry attractiveness, the framework is typically used before market entry or investment decisions. Airlines are a textbook example of a structurally unattractive industry under this lens: low barriers to entry in many short-haul markets, high buyer power (price comparison sites make switching near-costless), high supplier power (aircraft manufacturers and unionised labour), a constant threat of substitutes (rail, video conferencing on business routes), and intense rivalry — which together explain why airline profitability has historically lagged industries with more favourable force structures.

CHECKNOTE — *The airline example is a widely used illustrative case for this framework; it is independent grounding, not MG2007 course-pack content, and specific numeric profitability figures are not asserted here.*

Critically, the model has real limitations that should be raised: (i) it assumes relatively stable industry boundaries, which sit uneasily with fast-converging digital markets (is a food delivery app competing in the restaurant industry, the logistics industry, or the software platform industry?); (ii) it is a static snapshot and does not model how the forces will evolve, so it can understate the threat from a fast-moving new entrant; and (iii) it analyses industry structure but says nothing about a specific firm's internal capabilities, meaning two firms in an identically unattractive industry can still have very different performance — a gap addressed by resource-based views of strategy rather than by Porter's model itself.

VERDICT

A robust tool for explaining structural industry profitability; weaker in fast-converging or platform-based markets and silent on firm-level capability differences.

SOURCES CITED IN THIS ANSWER

Porter, M. E. (1979). How Competitive Forces Shape Strategy. *Harvard Business Review*, 57(2), 137–145.

Mark Allocation — Question 1(c)

Band	%	Marks	Criteria (per UCC MG2007 grade descriptors)
First Class 70–100%	70–100%	11.7– 16.7	All five forces correctly identified and explained with rivalry positioned as the central force; diagram correct; a well-grounded industry example; at least two independently-reasoned limitations (e.g. static snapshot, converging industry boundaries, silence on firm-level capability).
2.1 60–69%	60–69%	10.0– 11.5	Five forces correctly described; purpose explained; industry example present but under-developed; one limitation raised.
2.2 50–59%	50–59%	8.3–9.8	Forces listed with some inaccuracy or confusion between forces; limited link to industry attractiveness; minimal critique.
Pass 40–49%	40–49%	6.7–8.2	Partial recall of the five forces; little independent application; answer does not clearly address industry attractiveness as asked.
Fail 0–39%	0–39%	0–6.5	Forces largely missing or confused with an unrelated framework (e.g. PESTLE); no credible application or critique.
Sub-part total			16.7 / 16.7 marks

Question 1(d) — EFQM Model

QUESTION AS SET

d. Critically discuss the **EFQM model** and its application for operational performance.

FULL MODEL ANSWER

1. Description of the Model (≈40%)

The **EFQM Excellence Model** is a holistic management framework developed by the European Foundation for Quality Management, founded in the late 1980s by a group of leading European companies with support from the European Commission, with the first version of the model launched in 1991 as a pan-European alternative to national quality awards (subsequently revised, most recently in 2020). The model divides an organisation into **Enablers** — Leadership, People, Strategy, Partnerships & Resources, and Processes/Products/Services — which drive **Results** — People Results, Customer Results, Society Results, and overall Key Performance Results. An "Innovation and Learning" feedback loop runs from results back into the enablers, so that the model is intended to be continuously self-correcting rather than a one-off assessment.

ENABLERS

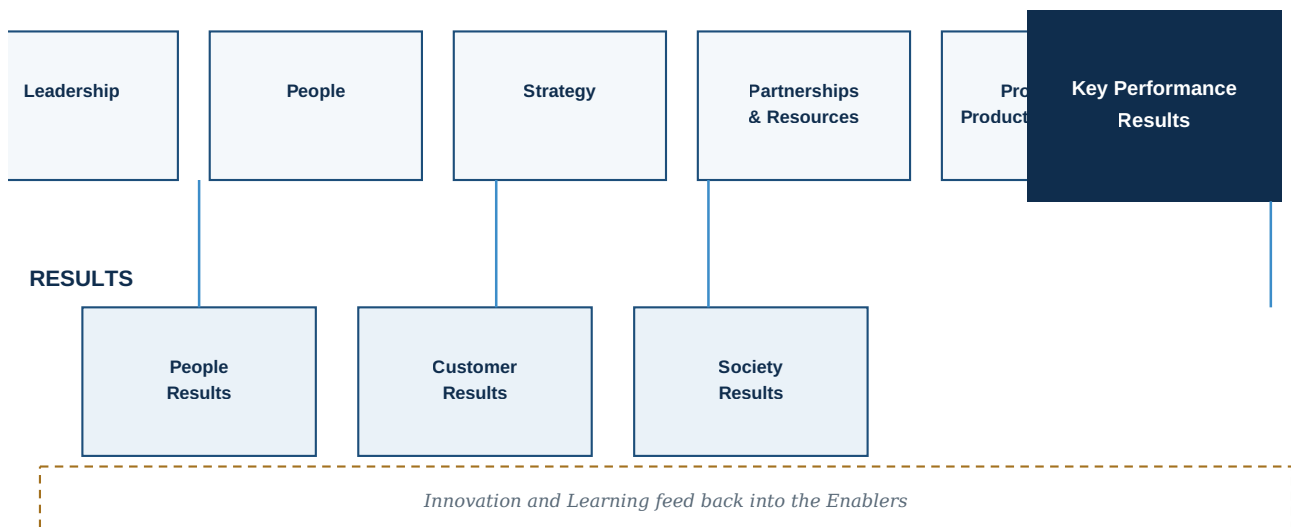


Figure 1 — Enablers driving Results, with feedback via innovation and learning.

2. Purpose and Benefits

The model's purpose is to provide organisations — profit and non-profit alike — with a common, externally benchmarkable structure for self-assessment, moving quality management beyond narrow product-inspection thinking toward a whole-organisation view of what drives sustainable performance. Its benefit is comprehensiveness: unlike narrower operational tools, it explicitly includes people and society results alongside financial/customer outcomes, which suits organisations (public bodies, universities, healthcare providers) for whom profit is not the only or even the primary success measure.

3. Critical Application — Operational Performance

Applied to operational performance, EFQM self-assessment is typically used by an organisation to score itself against each criterion (using EFQM's RADAR logic — Results, Approach, Deployment, Assessment and Refinement), identify the weakest-scoring enablers, and prioritise improvement projects there rather than spreading effort evenly across the whole organisation. It is widely used in European public-sector and healthcare bodies precisely because it does not assume a purely commercial success measure.

CHECKNOTE — *The description of RADAR logic and the public-sector/ healthcare adoption pattern goes beyond a bare definition of the model; it is grounded in EFQM's own published material rather than the MG2007 course pack specifically, and is flagged here for transparency.*

Critically, the model's limitations should be raised: (i) self-assessment against nine broad criteria is resource- and time-intensive, and smaller organisations often lack the administrative capacity to run it properly, which can turn the exercise into a box-ticking compliance activity rather than a genuine driver of change; (ii) because the criteria are broad and qualitative, scoring consistency between assessors can be weak without extensive assessor training, undermining the "benchmarkable" claim that is central to the model's value proposition; and (iii) unlike more operationally specific tools such as Six Sigma or Lean, EFQM identifies *where* performance is weak but provides comparatively little methodological guidance on *how* to fix it, meaning it is frequently used alongside, rather than instead of, more operationally prescriptive improvement tools.

VERDICT A strong diagnostic and benchmarking framework for whole-organisation performance; weak on prescribing the operational fix once a weakness is identified, and resource-intensive to run well.

SOURCES CITED IN THIS ANSWER

EFQM (European Foundation for Quality Management). *The EFQM Model*. Brussels: EFQM. (Foundation established 1988/89; first model published 1991, most recently revised 2020.)

Mark Allocation — Question 1(d)

Band	%	Marks	Criteria (per UCC MG2007 grade descriptors)
First Class 70–100%	70–100%	11.7– 16.7	Enablers and Results correctly identified with the feedback loop explained; diagram correct; RADAR logic or a comparable application mechanism discussed; at least two independently-reasoned limitations (e.g. resourcing burden, assessor consistency, weak prescriptive guidance).
2.1 60–69%	60–69%	10.0– 11.5	Enablers/Results correctly described; purpose explained; application to operational performance present but under-developed; one limitation raised.
2.2 50–59%	50–59%	8.3–9.8	Partial or generic description of the model; limited link to operational performance; minimal critique.
Pass 40–49%	40–49%	6.7–8.2	Basic recall that EFQM relates to quality/excellence; little independent application or critique.
Fail 0–39%	0–39%	0–6.5	Model misidentified or confused with an unrelated quality framework; no credible application.

Sub-part total

16.7 / 16.7 marks

Question 1 total (any 3 of 4 answered)

50 / 50 marks

Question 2 — Organisation, Leadership & Innovation Models

Answer any three of the following four. Use examples to support your answer. All four carry equal marks. (50 marks)

Question 2(a) — Greiner Growth Model

QUESTION AS SET

a. Critically discuss the **Greiner Growth Model** and its application for organizational innovation.

FULL MODEL ANSWER

1. Description of the Model (≈40%)

The **Greiner Growth Model**, developed by Larry Greiner, describes how organisations move through successive phases of **evolution** (a period of stable growth under a consistent management style) and **revolution** (a crisis that the current management style cannot resolve, forcing a structural change). The original 1972 model set out five phases — **Creativity** (ended by a leadership crisis), **Direction** (ended by an autonomy crisis), **Delegation** (ended by a control crisis), **Coordination** (ended by a red-tape crisis), and **Collaboration** — with a sixth phase, often summarised as growth through **alliances/extra-organisational solutions**, added in Greiner's own 1998 update to the original article. The model plots organisational size against organisational age, with each evolutionary phase ending in a crisis point that only a change in management practice can resolve.



Figure 1 — Evolution and revolution phases as an organisation grows, adapted from Greiner (1972).

2. Purpose and Benefits

The model's purpose is to show managers that the practices which enabled growth in one phase — for example, the informal, founder-led creativity that gets a start-up off the ground — become precisely the obstacle to growth in the next phase, and that a "crisis" is therefore a predictable, even necessary, feature of growth rather than a sign of managerial failure. Its benefit is diagnostic: a management team experiencing organisational strain can use the model to identify which crisis they are actually in, rather than treating every symptom (e.g. staff turnover, missed deadlines) as an isolated operational problem.

3. Critical Application — Organizational Innovation

Applied to organisational innovation, the model is useful for anticipating *when* an organisation's existing structure will start to constrain its capacity to innovate. A fast-growing technology start-up that scaled informally through its Creativity phase typically has to introduce formal management layers to survive its leadership crisis — but doing so risks precisely the kind of bureaucratic rigidity that later throttles the experimentation that made it innovative in the first place, illustrating the tension Greiner's model is built around.

CHECKNOTE — *The start-up scaling illustration is a generic pattern used to connect Greiner's stages to organisational innovation; it is independent grounding, not MG2007 course-pack content, and no specific named company is asserted to have followed this path.*

Critically, the model's limitations should be raised: (i) it assumes a broadly linear growth trajectory through fixed phases, which fits mature industrial-era organisations better than firms that scale non-linearly (rapid international expansion, platform businesses with network effects) or that deliberately stay small; (ii) it offers limited guidance on the specific corrective actions needed to resolve each crisis, describing the pattern more than prescribing the fix; and (iii) it was developed and revised well before contemporary agile and platform-based organisational forms became common, and its six phases map imperfectly onto organisations that are intentionally kept flat and are not trying to "graduate" toward Coordination or Collaboration in the way the model assumes.

VERDICT A strong diagnostic lens for anticipating structural growing pains; weaker as a prescriptive guide for exactly how to resolve each crisis, and dated in its assumption of a broadly linear growth path.

SOURCES CITED IN THIS ANSWER

Greiner, L. E. (1972). Evolution and Revolution as Organizations Grow. *Harvard Business Review*, 50(4), 37–46. (Revised and reprinted with a commentary by the author in *Harvard Business Review*, 76(3), May–June 1998.)

Mark Allocation — Question 2(a)

Band	%	Marks	Criteria (per UCC MG2007 grade descriptors)
First Class 70–100%	70–100%	11.7– 16.7	All phases (five original, sixth noted) correctly described with the evolution/revolution logic explained and named crisis points; diagram correct; a coherent application to organizational innovation; at least two independently-reasoned limitations (e.g. linear-growth assumption, weak prescriptive guidance, dated relative to platform organisations).
2.1 60–69%	60–69%	10.0– 11.5	Most phases and crises correctly described; purpose explained; application to innovation present but under-developed; one limitation raised.
2.2 50–59%	50–59%	8.3–9.8	Partial or generic description of phases; crises not clearly linked to each preceding phase; minimal critique.
Pass 40–49%	40–49%	6.7–8.2	Basic recall that the model concerns organisational growth stages; little independent application or critique.
Fail 0–39%	0–39%	0–6.5	Phases misidentified or confused with an unrelated lifecycle model; no credible application.
Sub-part total			16.7 / 16.7 marks

Question 2(b) — Situational Leadership Model

QUESTION AS SET

b. Critically discuss the **Situational Leadership Model** and its application to assess leadership skills.

FULL MODEL ANSWER

1. Description of the Model (≈40%)

The **Situational Leadership Model**, originally published by Paul Hersey and Kenneth Blanchard as the "Life Cycle Theory of Leadership," argues that there is no single best leadership style; instead, effective leadership depends on the **readiness (or "maturity") level** of the individual or team being led — a function of their competence and commitment for a given task. The model maps two behavioural axes — **directive behaviour** (task-focused instruction) and **supportive behaviour** (relationship-focused encouragement) — into four leadership styles: **S1 Telling** (high directive, low supportive — for low-readiness followers who need clear instruction), **S2 Selling** (high directive, high supportive — direction plus buy-in), **S3 Participating** (low directive, high supportive — shared decision-making for competent but less confident followers), and **S4 Delegating** (low directive, low supportive — for high-readiness followers who can work autonomously).

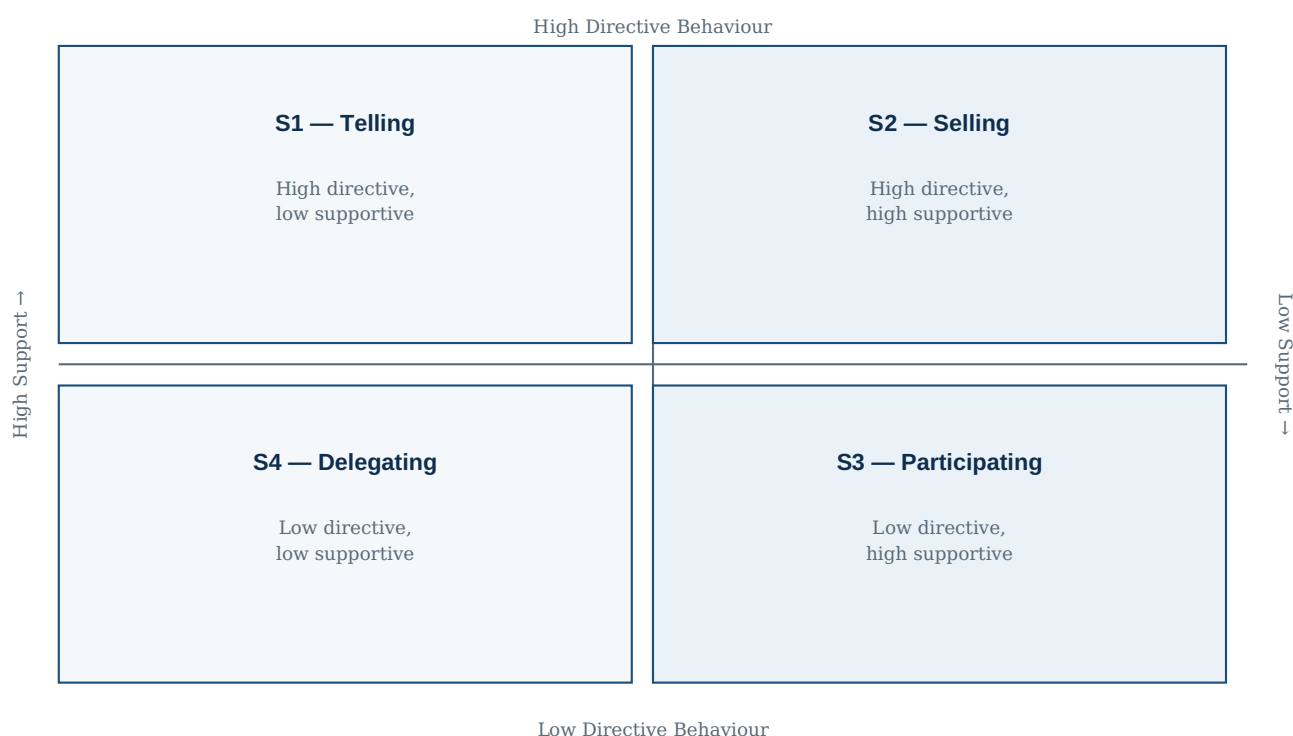


Figure 1 — The four leadership styles mapped against directive and supportive behaviour.

2. Purpose and Benefits

The model's purpose is to shift leadership development away from finding a manager's single "natural style" and toward developing the flexibility to diagnose a follower's readiness and adapt style accordingly. Its benefit is practical accessibility: the four-style, two-axis structure is simple enough to teach in a single training session and gives new

managers a concrete vocabulary for a decision they are already making instinctively — how much direction versus autonomy to give a given team member on a given task.

3. Critical Application — Assessing Leadership Skills

Applied to assessing leadership skills, the model is commonly used in management development and performance review to check whether a manager defaults to one style regardless of context — for example, a manager who "tells" an experienced, high-performing team member exactly how to do a familiar task risks demotivating them, while a manager who "delegates" to a new hire before they have the competence to work autonomously risks leaving them unsupported. A good leadership skills assessment under this model looks for evidence that a manager correctly diagnoses readiness *per task*, not just per person, since the same employee can be S4-ready on a familiar task and S1-level on a genuinely new one.

CHECKNOTE — *The manager/new-hire illustration is a generic pattern used to connect the model to leadership assessment practice; it is independent grounding, not MG2007 course-pack content.*

Critically, the model's limitations should be raised: (i) "readiness" is inherently difficult to measure objectively, so in practice its assessment is often subjective and vulnerable to a manager's own bias about who seems competent; (ii) empirical research testing the model's central prescriptions (that matching style to readiness improves outcomes) has produced mixed and in places weak support, unlike some competing leadership theories with a stronger evidence base; and (iii) the model treats leadership largely as a dyadic, task-by-task relationship and has comparatively little to say about leading through organisational culture, vision, or change at scale — areas addressed more directly by transformational leadership theory.

VERDICT A practical, teachable framework for adapting day-to-day leadership style to the individual and task; its empirical support is mixed, and it is less suited to assessing leadership at an organisational or cultural scale.

SOURCES CITED IN THIS ANSWER

Hersey, P. & Blanchard, K. H. (1969). Life Cycle Theory of Leadership. *Training and Development Journal*, 23(5), 26–34.

Mark Allocation — Question 2(b)

Band	%	Marks	Criteria (per UCC MG2007 grade descriptors)
First Class 70–100%	70–100%	11.7– 16.7	All four styles correctly mapped to directive/supportive axes and readiness levels; diagram correct; a coherent application to leadership skills assessment; at least two independently-reasoned limitations (e.g. subjectivity of readiness, mixed empirical support, limited scope beyond dyadic leadership).
2.1 60–69%	60–69%	10.0– 11.5	Most styles correctly described; purpose explained; application to leadership assessment present but under-developed; one limitation raised.
2.2 50–59%	50–59%	8.3–9.8	Partial or generic description of the four styles; axes not clearly linked to readiness; minimal critique.
Pass 40–49%	40–49%	6.7–8.2	Basic recall that leadership style should vary by situation; little independent application or critique.
Fail 0–39%	0–39%	0–6.5	Styles misidentified or confused with an unrelated leadership theory; no credible application.
Sub-part total			16.7 / 16.7 marks

Question 2(c) — Balanced Scorecard

QUESTION AS SET

c. Critically discuss **the Balanced Scorecard** and its application for organizational performance.

FULL MODEL ANSWER

1. Description of the Model (≈40%)

The **Balanced Scorecard (BSC)**, developed by Robert Kaplan and David Norton, is a strategic performance management framework built on the argument that financial measures alone are backward-looking and insufficient to manage a modern organisation. It translates strategy into targets and measures across four linked perspectives: **Financial** ("How do we look to shareholders?"), **Customer** ("How do customers see us?"), **Internal Business Processes** ("What must we excel at?"), and **Learning & Growth** ("Can we continue to improve and create value?"). The four perspectives are causally linked — improvements in learning and growth are intended to drive better internal processes, which drive stronger customer outcomes, which ultimately drive financial results — so the scorecard is meant to be read as a chain of cause and effect, not four independent scorecards.



Figure 1 — The four Balanced Scorecard perspectives linked around vision and strategy.

2. Purpose and Benefits

The model's purpose is to stop organisations managing purely to short-term financial results by forcing an explicit, measurable link between day-to-day operational activity (staff training, process quality) and the long-term outcomes that activity is supposed to produce. Its benefit is balance in the literal sense implied by its name: a management team

reviewing only financial results has no early warning that customer satisfaction or process quality is deteriorating until it eventually shows up in the numbers, whereas a balanced scorecard is designed to surface that decline earlier, through the leading, non-financial perspectives.

3. Critical Application — Organizational Performance

Applied to organizational performance, firms typically build a scorecard by first agreeing 3–5 strategic objectives per perspective, then choosing a small number of measurable targets for each — for example, a manufacturing firm might use on-time delivery and defect rate as Internal Process measures, employee training hours as a Learning & Growth measure, and net promoter score as a Customer measure, each explicitly linked back to a stated financial objective such as margin improvement. The scorecard is then reviewed on a regular cycle alongside, not instead of, standard financial reporting.

CHECKNOTE — *The manufacturing-firm illustration of specific measures per perspective is a generic pattern used to make the four-perspective logic concrete; it is independent grounding, not MG2007 course-pack content, and no specific named company's actual scorecard is asserted here.*

Critically, the model's limitations should be raised: (i) selecting the "right" measures for each perspective is genuinely difficult, and a poorly chosen measure can drive exactly the wrong behaviour (e.g. an on-time delivery target met by shipping incomplete orders); (ii) the assumed causal chain from learning and growth through to financial results is intuitively appealing but has proven hard to demonstrate empirically in a rigorous, generalisable way, meaning the "balance" the model promises is easier to assert than to prove; and (iii) implementing and maintaining a full scorecard is administratively heavy, and organisations frequently end up tracking too many measures across the four perspectives, diluting the tool's original intent of focusing management attention rather than expanding it.

VERDICT A genuinely useful corrective to purely financial management, provided the chosen measures are disciplined and few; the causal logic linking the four perspectives is intuitive but not strongly evidenced, and poor measure selection is a real implementation risk.

SOURCES CITED IN THIS ANSWER

Kaplan, R. S. & Norton, D. P. (1992). The Balanced Scorecard — Measures That Drive Performance. *Harvard Business Review*, 70(1), 71–79.

Mark Allocation — Question 2(c)

Band	%	Marks	Criteria (per UCC MG2007 grade descriptors)
First Class 70–100%	70–100%	11.7– 16.7	All four perspectives correctly described with the causal linkage between them explained; diagram correct; a coherent application to organizational performance with concrete illustrative measures; at least two independently-reasoned limitations (e.g. measure selection risk, weak empirical support for the causal chain, implementation burden).
2.1 60–69%	60–69%	10.0– 11.5	Four perspectives correctly described; purpose explained; application to performance present but under-developed; one limitation raised.
2.2 50–59%	50–59%	8.3–9.8	Partial or generic description of the perspectives; causal linkage not explained; minimal critique.
Pass 40–49%	40–49%	6.7–8.2	Basic recall that the scorecard is not purely financial; little independent application or critique.
Fail 0–39%	0–39%	0–6.5	Perspectives misidentified or confused with an unrelated performance framework; no credible application.
Sub-part total			16.7 / 16.7 marks

Question 2(d) — Stage-Gate Model

QUESTION AS SET

d. Critically discuss the **Stage Gate Model** and its application for organizational innovation.

FULL MODEL ANSWER

1. Description of the Model (≈40%)

The **Stage-Gate Model**, developed by Robert Cooper, is a structured process for managing a new product from idea through to launch, breaking the journey into a sequence of **stages** — such as Discovery, Scoping, Building the Business Case, Development, Testing & Validation, and Launch — each followed by a **gate**: a go/kill decision point where a cross-functional review team assesses whether the project has met defined criteria to proceed, needs rework, or should be cancelled. Each stage involves parallel, cross-functional work (technical, marketing, and financial workstreams running concurrently rather than in a strict silo-to-silo handoff), while each gate acts as a quality-control checkpoint that commits progressively more resource to the project only as uncertainty is reduced.

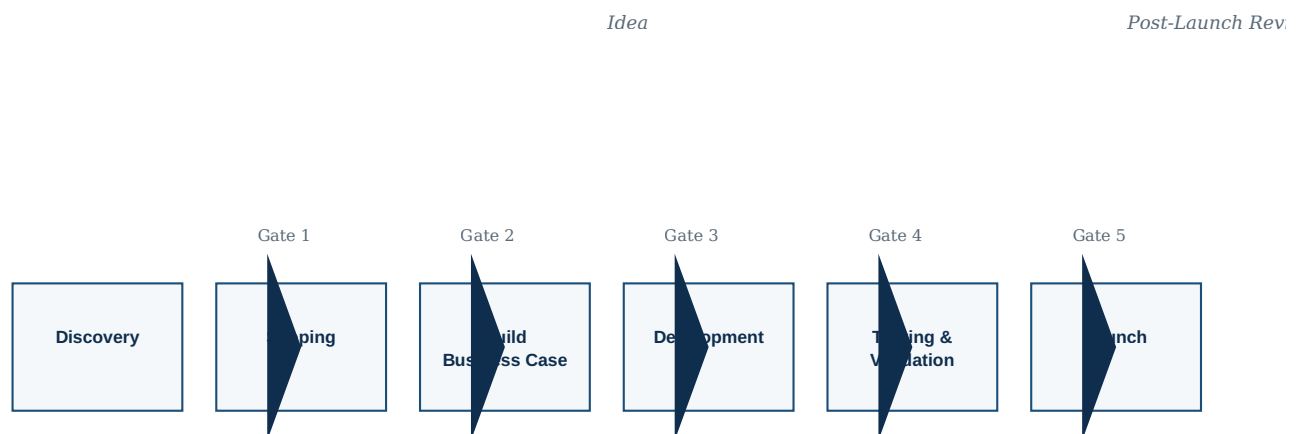


Figure 1 — Sequential stages separated by go/kill gates, from idea to launch.

2. Purpose and Benefits

The model's purpose is to reduce the historically high failure rate of new product development by preventing weak projects from consuming disproportionate resource simply because they were never formally reviewed and killed early. Its benefit is discipline: because each gate requires the project to clear defined criteria before more budget is committed, resource is concentrated on the strongest projects in the pipeline rather than spread thinly across every idea that was initially approved.

3. Critical Application — Organizational Innovation

Applied to organizational innovation, Stage-Gate is widely used in industries where product failure is expensive and hard to reverse post-launch — consumer packaged goods, pharmaceuticals, and industrial manufacturing are classic adopters, since a formal gate review before large-scale tooling or regulatory investment can prevent a costly late-stage

cancellation. Cooper's own later work notes that a majority of firms doing formal product development had adopted some version of the process by the 2000s, reflecting its broad industry uptake.

CHECKNOTE — The industry-adoption pattern (CPG, pharma, manufacturing) is grounded in Cooper's own published commentary on Stage-Gate's uptake rather than in the MG2007 course pack specifically, and is flagged here for transparency; no precise current adoption percentage is asserted.

Critically, the model's limitations should be raised: (i) a rigid, heavily bureaucratic gate process can slow down exactly the kind of fast, iterative experimentation that digital and software-based innovation depends on, which is why many technology firms have moved toward more agile, iterative development approaches instead of a strict linear stage-gate sequence; (ii) gate criteria are set in advance and can be gamed — project teams learn what a gate committee wants to see and present a case optimised to pass the gate rather than one that reflects the project's true risk; and (iii) because each gate is a discrete go/kill decision, promising but unconventional ideas that do not fit neatly into standard evaluation criteria at an early gate can be killed prematurely, before the market opportunity has had a chance to become legible.

VERDICT An effective discipline for capital-intensive, failure-costly innovation; poorly suited on its own to fast-iterating digital innovation, where firms increasingly blend it with agile methods (an "Agile-Stage-Gate" hybrid) rather than applying it in its original linear form.

SOURCES CITED IN THIS ANSWER

Cooper, R. G. (1990). Stage-Gate Systems: A New Tool for Managing New Products. *Business Horizons*, 33(3), 44–54.

Mark Allocation — Question 2(d)

Band	%	Marks	Criteria (per UCC MG2007 grade descriptors)
First Class 70–100%	70–100%	11.7– 16.7	Stages and gates correctly described with the go/kill review logic explained; diagram correct; a coherent application to organizational innovation with a credible industry context; at least two independently-reasoned limitations (e.g. rigidity versus agile innovation, gate criteria being gamed, premature killing of unconventional ideas).
2.1 60–69%	60–69%	10.0– 11.5	Stages/gates correctly described; purpose explained; application to innovation present but under-developed; one limitation raised.
2.2 50–59%	50–59%	8.3–9.8	Partial or generic description of the process; gate function not clearly explained; minimal critique.
Pass 40–49%	40–49%	6.7–8.2	Basic recall that new products move through stages; little independent application or critique.
Fail 0–39%	0–39%	0–6.5	Stages/gates misidentified or confused with an unrelated process model; no credible application.

Sub-part total

16.7 / 16.7 marks

